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RESEARCH ARTICLE

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ChatGPT, can you take my job interview? Examining artificial intelligence cheating in the asynchronous video interview

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Abstract

Artificial intelligence (AI) chatbots, such as Chat Generative Pre-trained Transformer (ChatGPT), may threaten the validity of selection processes. This study provides the first examination of how AI cheating in the asynchronous video interview (AVI) may impact interview performance and applicant reactions. In a preregistered experiment, Prolific respondents ($N = 245$) completed an AVI after being randomly assigned to a non-ChatGPT, ChatGPT-Verbatim (read AI-generated responses word-for-word), or ChatGPT-Personalized condition (provided their résumé/contextual instructions to ChatGPT and modified the AI-generated responses). The ChatGPT conditions received considerably higher scores on overall performance and content than the non-ChatGPT condition. However, response delivery ratings did not differ between conditions and the ChatGPT conditions received lower honesty ratings. Both ChatGPT conditions rated the AVI as lower on procedural justice than the non-ChatGPT condition.

KEYWORDS

artificial intelligence, asynchronous video interview, interview performance, personnel selection

Practitioner points

- Asynchronous video interviewees who read or paraphrased artificial intelligence (AI)-generated responses received much higher overall interview ratings than those who did not use AI, suggesting that AI cheating may pose a serious threat to the validity of the AVI.
- However, interviewees who used AI received lower honesty scores, which suggests that "AI cheaters," especially those that read responses verbatim, may be identified with some accuracy.
- Interviewees who used AI rated the AVI as less procedurally fair, highlighting the potential for negative reactions from applicants that are aware of the AVI's susceptibility to AI cheating.

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> "…the day will come when the digital brains that live inside our computers will become as good – and even better – than our own biological brains; computers will become smarter than us."
>
> Ilya Sutskever (former Chief Scientist of OpenAI; Sutskever, 2023)

Artificial intelligence (AI) is revolutionizing the workplace. The public release of Chat Generative Pre-trained Transformer (ChatGPT) in November 2022, and the following releases of Gemini (formerly Bard) and Microsoft Copilot, have marked the beginning of a new era of work. Early estimates suggest that the vast majority of workers (80%) will have at least some of their tasks impacted by advanced AI, while almost a fifth of workers (19%) will have at least 50% of their tasks impacted (Eloundou et al., 2023). Research suggests that the new capabilities of AI will improve both the quantity and quality of employees' work across a variety of fields from marketing to human resource management (Brynjolfsson et al., 2023; Dell'Acqua et al., 2023; Noy & Zhang, 2023). For example, ChatGPT may improve productivity in a variety of tasks such as grant writing, consulting, data analyzing, and managing (Noy & Zhang, 2023). In addition, AI's benefits in the workplace will likely not be limited to job performance but extend to employee well-being, with research linking use of ChatGPT to increases in job satisfaction and self-efficacy (Noy & Zhang, 2023). However, although AI has the potential to greatly help organizations through improving productivity and employee well-being, it also has the potential to harm them.

In the context of personnel selection, AI tools such as ChatGPT can be used in ways that may threaten the validity of organizations' selection processes. One potentially harmful use-case is that job applicants may use AI to cheat on asynchronous video interviews (AVIs). An AVI is a type of non-live job interview that is conducted through the internet. It involves asking applicants to video-record responses to predetermined questions (Langer et al., 2017). Once an interview question is presented (e.g., often in text), applicants are typically provided with 30 s to 1 min, to prepare each response (Dunlop et al., 2022). However, during the preparation time, applicants can now copy and paste the text of their AVI questions into an AI chatbot and almost instantly receive a response which they can verbally recite as their own. They can even add personal information (e.g., provide their résumé) or contextual information (e.g., "imagine the hiring organization had a collaborative organizational culture") to help elicit a higher quality response from the chatbot. By misleading the hiring organization through providing AI-generated responses that do not reflect their own knowledge, qualifications, and/or beliefs, applicants may receive inflated scores and reduce the predictive validity of the AVI.

The present research will investigate this concern by using a three-group experimental design to examine how AI cheating, and the extent to which interviewees modify their AI-generated responses before presenting them, may affect interview performance. It is also important to understand how AI cheating may impact applicant reactions as they can predict applicants' intentions and behavior (McCarthy et al., 2017; Smither et al., 1993), potentially including whether they will engage in AI cheating on subsequent AVIs. Thus, the present research will also examine how applicants react to participating in AI cheating and whether their participation affects their perceptions of the procedural justice of the AVI as a selection tool. The research is particularly valuable, because it represents, to our knowledge, the first examination of AI cheating in the AVI.

1 | AI AND ADVANCED CHATBOTS

AI is a broad term to encompass computer-based technologies that can perform cognitive functions that are associated with the human brain such as problem solving, decision-making, language processing, knowledge synthesis, and idea generation. ChatGPT is a powerful AI chatbot from OpenAI that relies on natural language processing and machine learning to provide text responses to users' typed requests and queries (OpenAI, 2022). ChatGPT's responses are typically accurate, task-relevant, and clear due to its powerful underlying language-learning model (Kung et al., 2023). Users' satisfaction with the technology is high as demonstrated by its large user-base of 100 million weekly active users (Shewale, 2023) and by the popularity of Microsoft Copilot, which uses ChatGPT's technology and has 100 million daily active users (Warren, 2023).

2 | CHEATING WITH AI IN AVIS

Although AI chatbots can be helpful tools, applicants' use of AI may pose a serious threat to the validity of the AVI. If applicants can use their preparation time (typically at least 30 s; Dunlop et al., 2022) to get help from an AI chatbot, then they can provide high-quality responses that are unreflective of their own knowledge, skills, and beliefs. They can even edit their instructions to the technology or revise the responses it provides before delivering them in the interview to potentially achieve higher interview ratings. AVIs are a common tool used by organizations, with 74% of organizations in a 2020 survey reporting incorporating them in their hiring process (Friedman, 2021). Thus, AI cheating on AVIs has the potential to result in many unqualified or mediocre candidates advancing to higher stages of selection processes and, ultimately, being hired.

Although some applications such as ZeroGPT and Sapling have been created to detect the use of AI, these tools were designed to analyze written rather than spoken text and thus, would not be suitable for directly analyzing the video responses provided in AVIs. It is also unclear whether AVI responses that are transcribed into text could even be accurately classified by these technologies. Specifically, AI detection technologies are not always accurate and many can be tricked into thinking AI-generated content is human-written by changing the phrasing of certain sections or adding typos (Khalil & Er, 2023). Thus, despite the existence of AI detection tools, AI cheating represents a potent threat to the validity of AVIs.

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3 | AI CHEATING AS A NEW FORM OF DECEPTION

Deception in the job interview is not a recent phenomenon. Interview faking, which involves intentionally distorting interview responses to create a favorable impression, has been discussed in the literature since the early 2000s (Levashina & Campion, 2007) and been an issue in practice since the inception of the job interview. The faking dimension of Levashina and Campion's (2006) faking model that most closely resembles AI interview cheating would be extensive image creation, which deals with completely fabricating qualifications, skills, and attitudes. In addition, if AI cheating involves applicants paraphrasing AI responses but still adding some of their own knowledge and beliefs, it may resemble slight image creation, which deals with minor distortions about qualifications, skills, and attitudes. However, despite these similarities, AI cheating arguably represents a new form of deception in the job interview.

The novelty of this form of interview deception stems from four key factors: (I) AI cheating can (currently) only comfortably take place during AVIs and not during face-to-face interviews nor live, online job interviews; (II) AI cheating involves technology generating the responses and not humans; (III) AI cheating may involve providing faked knowledge (e.g., on job knowledge) while interview faking is largely limited to fabrications of experiences, attitudes, and/or beliefs (e.g., on behavioral questions), and (IV) AI cheating may be a more powerful form of deception as AI chatbots can consistently provide task-relevant and accurate responses with little-to-no effort or skill on the part of the user (Capelouto, 2023). This last point is particularly important because it highlights how AI cheating could improve the content of interviewees' responses and have a strong negative impact on the validity of the AVI, an effect not seen in traditional interview faking research (Ho et al., 2021). Thus, there are several arguments to be made for considering AI cheating on an AVI to be a new form of job interview deception.

4 | HOW AI CHEATING MAY IMPACT INTERVIEW PERFORMANCE

Although past job interview deception research has not consistently found a positive effect of deception on interview performance (see Ho et al., 2021), there is reason to believe that research on AI cheating on AVIs may be different. The revolutionary capability of advanced AI chatbots enables them to quickly provide clear and accurate responses to written questions (Capelouto, 2023; Gilson et al., 2023; Kung et al., 2023). While there are issues with the veracity of some of the information provided (Alkaissi & McFarlane, 2023; Verma & Oremus, 2023), advanced AI chatbots can generally provide accurate information and make logical decisions (Johnson et al., 2023; Varanasi, 2023). This capability has been demonstrated by ChatGPT's performance on standardized tests. For example, ChatGPT scored in the 88th percentile on the law school admission test, the 93rd percentile on the SAT Reading and Writing section, the 89th percentile on the SAT Math section, and the 99th percentile on the GRE Verbal section (Capelouto, 2023). Given the technology's strong capability, job applicants who use the technology to complete AVIs may consistently provide more job-relevant and accurate responses than they would have provided on their own.

In trying to predict how ChatGPT may impact applicants' performance in AVIs, it is also useful to examine Levashina and Campion's (2006) model of faking. While the model overall focuses on faking likelihood rather than faking effectiveness, its capacity to fake dimension focuses on factors that affect how well applicants can deceive interviewers. Levashina and Campion (2006) state that capacity to fake includes capabilities such as cognitive ability and make the case that the greater someone's cognitive ability, the greater their ability to fake. Some research has supported this contention with Levashina et al. (2009) finding that those higher on cognitive ability faked more effectively on a biodata measure.

Advanced AI chatbots, through their ability to provide high-quality responses to users' queries (Capelouto, 2023; Noy & Zhang, 2023), can be thought of as augmenting—or even replacing the need for—human intelligence. Specifically, the technology can increase job applicants' capacity to cheat during AVIs by providing them with well-written, accurate, and job-relevant responses almost at an instant. The contention that individuals can effectively cheat on tasks with AI has been supported by research on personality tests (Phillips & Robie, 2024) and by research in academic settings (e.g., Cotton et al., 2023; Malinka et al., 2023).

In this study, overall interview performance is assessed by averaging participants' "content" ratings and "delivery" ratings across the interview questions. While the delivery of participants' responses may not improve—and may even worsen—because of the incorporation of AI, the benefit that AI will provide to the content of participants' responses will likely be so great that AI cheating will have a net-positive effect on overall performance.

In addition, job applicants may also be able to improve the quality of ChatGPT's responses by adding personal information (e.g., their résumé) or contextual information (e.g., "the organization has an innovative culture") into their ChatGPT prompts. Applicants may also be able to paraphrase the responses of ChatGPT to highlight the most relevant information and add key points that they feel ChatGPT did not mention. If applicants take a "ChatGPT-Personalized" approach to obtaining/delivering responses from ChatGPT (i.e., providing their résumé, adding contextual information, and/or revising the ChatGPT responses), they may provide responses that are more job-relevant, in line with best practices, and that appear more authentic than if they had read the ChatGPT responses "verbatim."

Thus, in line with Levashina and Campion's (2006) model, we predict the following:

Hypothesis 1a. The ChatGPT conditions will have higher overall interview ratings than the non-ChatGPT condition.

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Hypothesis 1b. The ChatGPT-Personalized condition will have higher overall interview ratings than the ChatGPT-Verbatim condition.

In evaluating interviews, raters typically provide assessments of applicants' performance by considering two primary components: content and delivery (Barrick et al., 2009; Basch et al., 2021; Naim et al., 2018). Content is typically formally assessed and refers to the quality of the response provided in terms of the described ideas, experiences, and attitudes. On the other hand, delivery refers to how well applicants can communicate their thoughts during the interview (e.g., pace, demeanor, eye contact, and clarity) and, while not often formally assessed, applicants' delivery can still impact interview ratings (Basch et al., 2021; Gifford et al., 1985; Riggio & Throckmorton, 1988). Both elements are meaningful as they each provide valuable information on distinct aspects of interview performance.

In predicting how AI cheating may affect 'content' ratings in AVIs, it is important to recognize that AI chatbots' primary benefit to interviewees is providing relevant and accurate responses that they can then recite as their own. These responses would likely be well-received given AI chatbots' proven intellectual capability to consistently provide accurate (Capelouto, 2023) and task-relevant responses (Malinka et al., 2023). Thus, applicants using AI to cheat during AVIs will likely have higher content ratings than those not relying on AI due to an increased capacity to cheat for those in the AI conditions.

Hypothesis 2. The ChatGPT conditions will have higher interview ratings for content than the non-ChatGPT condition.

AI cheating on AVIs is unique in that applicants must retrieve the answers and then verbally present them. The requirement to present AI-generated content poses a unique challenge to applicants which may result in their delivery of the AI-generated content being poorer than the delivery of their own content would have been. Although the content of ChatGPT-based responses may be high-quality, the task of presenting the content as their own may be too difficult for applicants to do so effectively. A meta-analysis by Powell et al. (2018) and recent research from McCarthy et al. (2021) found that interview anxiety has a negative impact on performance ratings. Given how anxiety can negatively impact interview performance, applicants' anxiety with using tools such as ChatGPT and/or with cheating may lead to reduced interview performance ratings for delivery. Thus, ChatGPT may have a nuanced effect on applicant's interview performance where it may lead to improved content ratings but lead to poorer delivery by increasing the difficulty of communicating during the AVI and by increasing applicants' interview anxiety.

Hypothesis 3a. The ChatGPT conditions will have lower interview ratings for delivery than the non-ChatGPT condition.

Hypothesis 3b. The relationship between condition and interview ratings for delivery will be mediated by perceived task difficulty.

Hypothesis 3c. The relationship between condition and interview ratings for delivery will be mediated by interview anxiety.

In line with the prediction that participants relying on ChatGPT may receive lower interview ratings for delivery, it may be that evaluators also suspect that the participants' responses are not authentic. Participants in the ChatGPT conditions will need to read the text generated by ChatGPT to obtain their responses. This process of reading, especially in the Verbatim condition, may result in unnatural deliveries that may act as cues that the ChatGPT participants are not being genuine. In addition, the content provided by ChatGPT may be overly generic and/or repeat across participants, which would also suggest that the responses were fabricated. Thus, raters may be able to discern the level of honesty of participants with some degree of accuracy.

Hypothesis 4. Participants in both ChatGPT conditions will be perceived as less honest than the participants in the non-ChatGPT condition.

5 | APPLICANT REACTIONS

Applicant reactions refer to the "attitudes, feelings, or beliefs a candidate may have about an organization's hiring process" (Ryan & Ployhart, 2000). They can refer to a range of psychological phenomena such as motivation, enjoyment, test anxiety, and perceptions of fairness (e.g., Gilliland, 1993). Applicant reactions are important because they can influence applicants' intentions and behavior (McCarthy et al., 2017). For example, applicants' perceptions of the fairness of a selection process can influence their job pursuit intentions, job acceptance intentions, and their likelihood of recommending an organization (Chapman et al., 2005).

It is important to understand applicant reactions to using AI to cheat on AVIs, because the reactions may predict the likelihood that real interviewees will use and re-use AI to cheat on AVIs. The notion that reactions can affect behavior is supported by Lieberman and Hoffmann (2008) who found a positive relationship between affective reactions and motivation, suggesting that if people enjoy doing a task, they will be more likely to engage in it in the future.

Noy and Zhang (2023) found that ChatGPT exposure led to increased job satisfaction and self-efficacy. In addition, through the analysis of qualitative feedback, they found that many users enjoyed working with the technology. Furthermore, the researchers found that ChatGPT has the potential to significantly increase the productivity of workers and the quality of their work. The strong affective and utility perceptions of AI among employees may also translate into positive applicant reactions in the AVI context as interviewees may enjoy using AI to cheat on AVIs and find the technology useful in helping them do so effectively. If interviewees provide their résumés and contextual information before typing in their AVI questions (e.g., ChatGPT-Personalized condition), this may

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also help increase applicants' sense of autonomy. Autonomy is linked to positive affect and motivation (Martela et al., 2018; Nix et al., 1999), so the ability to provide contextual information and revise the responses generated by AI before presenting them may also result in higher affective and utility perceptions. Thus, we predict the following:

Hypothesis 5a. Those in the ChatGPT conditions will enjoy using the technology.

Hypothesis 5b. Those in the ChatGPT-Personalized condition will enjoy using the technology more than the participants in the ChatGPT-Verbatim condition.

Hypothesis 6a. Those in the ChatGPT conditions will find the technology useful.

Hypothesis 6b. Those in the ChatGPT-Personalized condition will find the technology more useful than the participants in the ChatGPT-Verbatim condition.

Procedural fairness refers to whether the procedure underlying how a selection decision is made is fair (Gilliland, 1993). Research has found that procedural fairness is related to organizational attractiveness, intentions to recommend the organization, and job acceptance intentions (Chapman et al., 2005; McCarthy et al., 2013). Gilliland's (1993) model of fairness in selection contends that there are 10 rules that must be met in selection procedures for applicants to feel that the selection process was fair. These rules include elements such as ensuring that the selection approach is job-related and that it is administered consistently across all candidates.

The ability to use ChatGPT to cheat on AVIs may result in applicants no longer viewing the AVI as a fair selection tool. In relation to Gilliland's rules, applicants may not see AVIs as valid in terms of job-relatedness. Specifically, they may no longer think that an AVI can accurately assess an applicant's qualifications nor predict their job performance given that job applicants can use AI to generate their responses. Job applicants who have used the technology themselves to complete an AVI may be particularly aware of the AVI's susceptibility to cheating and be more likely to hold the view that the AVI is not a valuable selection tool.

Hypothesis 7. Those in the ChatGPT conditions will view the AVI as less procedurally fair than those in the non-ChatGPT condition.

6 | METHOD

6.1 | Sample

An a priori power analysis recommended a sample of 246 participants to achieve a power of 0.80 and detect a Cohen's *d* effect size of 0.40.[1] Assuming that ~20% of participants would not provide usable data, 310 participants were recruited from the United States and Canada through Prolific. Participants were removed from the study if they failed the attention check ("please select disagree"), if all their videos could not be opened or were not functioning properly (e.g., no audio), if they demonstrated inattentive response patterns, and/or if they did not pass the data-quality checks (e.g., they appeared to use ChatGPT in the non-ChatGPT condition). The final sample consisted of 245 participants.

The mean age was 36.53 years old (SD = 13.04). The sample was gender-balanced between women (49.2%) and men (47.2%). The largest racial/ethnic group was White (49%). The sample was well educated with 45.3% having earned up to a bachelor's degree, and 22.7% having earned up to a master's degree. Most participants were employed full-time (55.9%), while 22.3% were employed part-time, and 21.9% were unemployed. The median for administrative experience (relevant for the mock position) was 4 years. For traditional interview experience, the median was 4 interviews and the median AVI experience was 1, which indicates that the average participant had previously completed only one AVI.

6.2 | Procedure

Participants from Prolific were directed to an online AVI and survey platform called VIPP (https://vipp-project.com/). Participants were provided with an online consent form that outlined the risks, benefits, and compensation (e.g., 5 British Pound Sterling) associated with participation, and electronically provided their consent.

Participants were randomly assigned to one of three conditions: non-ChatGPT, ChatGPT-Verbatim, and ChatGPT-Personalized. They were instructed to imagine that they had applied for the position of "Administrative Assistant," and that they had received an interview request. Participants were provided with a job description for the position which outlined the responsibilities and desired skills and characteristics. Across all three conditions, participants had unlimited preparation time for each of the interview questions and could video-record responses that were up to 4 min long. To help increase the external validity of the interview process and the likelihood that participants took the interview seriously, participants were informed that the top 15 interview performers would receive an additional 3 British Pound Sterling as an interview performance bonus.

Those in the non-ChatGPT condition began the three-question AVI immediately. However, those in the ChatGPT conditions were provided with additional instructions on how to use ChatGPT to formulate the content for their interview question responses. First, those in the ChatGPT conditions were provided with a set of instructions on how to create an OpenAI account (if they did not already have one). Next, they were also provided with distinct instructions on how to use the technology to obtain responses to the interview questions. The instructions included information on how the participants should enter the interview questions into ChatGPT and—in the case of the ChatGPT-Personalized condition—how they

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could provide their résumés and add contextual information that they thought would help generate a higher-quality response (e.g., "I want to appear intelligent and knowledgeable about administrative work"). ChatGPT-Verbatim participants were instructed to read their responses "verbatim" (i.e., precisely as they appeared from ChatGPT), while ChatGPT-Personalized participants were encouraged to phrase the content in their own words. Participants across both the Verbatim and Personalized conditions were instructed to deliver the content as if it was completely their own. In addition, they were asked to copy-and-paste the responses generated by ChatGPT into text boxes so it could be confirmed that they were using the technology.

After completing the interview, participants across all three conditions were informed that the mock selection process had concluded. They were then asked to complete a questionnaire comprised of several measures including task difficulty, job interview anxiety, affective reactions (ChatGPT conditions only), utility reactions (ChatGPT conditions only), and procedural justice reactions.

As a data quality check, at least one video response from each participant was reviewed to ensure that those in the non-ChatGPT condition did not use ChatGPT and that those in ChatGPT conditions (Verbatim and Personalized) did use ChatGPT. Specifically, it was checked whether participants' responses deviated from the responses ChatGPT may provide (if in non-ChatGPT) or were in line with them (if in Verbatim or Personalized). For example, the ChatGPT participants were inspected to ensure that their recorded responses were in line with the text that they copy-and-pasted into the text boxes and that the text was in line with the responses ChatGPT had provided during an informal testing of ChatGPT's question responses. As a second data quality check, participants indicated if they used AI tools (yes or no) to complete the AVI. Participants who had incongruencies with their assigned condition (e.g., were in a ChatGPT condition but said they did not use AI) were inspected, and those who demonstrated inattentive response patterns were removed from the sample.

6.3 | Measures

6.3.1 | Task difficulty

Three items ($\alpha = .88$), adapted from Kalyuga et al. (1999), assessed participants' perceptions of the difficulty of completing the interview. An example item was "how difficult was it to determine what you would say for the interview questions?" The items relied on a 7-point scale ranging from (1) *very easy* to (7) *very difficult*.

6.3.2 | Job interview anxiety (McCarthy & Goffin, 2004)

Four modified items (two performance anxiety and two communication anxiety; $\alpha = .83$) from McCarthy and Goffin's (2004) interview anxiety scale were used to assess job interview anxiety during the AVI. Example items included "during the job interview, I was very nervous about whether my performance was good enough" (performance anxiety) and "I became so apprehensive in the job interview that I was unable to express my thoughts clearly" (communication anxiety). Responses were provided on a 5-point Likert scale (1 = *strongly disagree* to 5 = *strongly agree*).

6.3.3 | Affective reactions (Smither et al., 1993)

Two items ($\alpha = .83$) adapted from Smither et al. (1993) were used to assess the extent to which participants enjoyed using ChatGPT to complete the AVI. An example item was "I enjoyed using ChatGPT to answer the interview questions to a great degree." Responses were provided on a 5-point Likert scale (1 = *strongly disagree* to 5 = *strongly agree*).

6.3.4 | Utility reactions

Five items ($\alpha = .92$) assessed applicant perceptions of the utility of ChatGPT in helping them complete the AVI. Three items were adapted from Davis' (1993) perceived usefulness scale (e.g., "using ChatGPT made it easier to complete the interview"). Two additional utility reactions items were created: (e.g., "I think ChatGPT helped me obtain a higher interview rating than I would have obtained on my own"). Responses were provided on a 5-point Likert scale (1 = *strongly disagree* to 5 = *strongly agree*).

6.3.5 | Procedural justice reactions (Bauer et al., 2001)

Two items ($\alpha = .85$) adapted from the job relatedness dimension of Bauer et al.'s (2001) procedural justice scale assessed applicant perceptions of the procedural justice of an AVI. An example item was "a person who scores well on an AVI will likely be a good employee." Responses were provided on a 5-point Likert scale (1 = *strongly disagree* to 5 = *strongly agree*).

6.3.6 | Interview performance

A team of six raters blind to the study's purpose and participants' condition evaluated interview performance. They provided six interview performance ratings for each participant. They provided ratings in terms of content and delivery for each of the three interview questions (three content and three delivery ratings) using five-point behaviorally anchored rating scales (BARS) (1 = *poor*; 3 = *satisfactory*; and 5 = *excellent*). In addition, an overall performance score was calculated for each participant by determining their average score across the six ratings. Rater training was conducted to introduce the raters to the BARS and to provide them with the opportunity to practice rating videos together. In a pilot test, the

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raters were assigned to rate the same 15 participants. The intra-class correlation coefficients (ICCs) in the pilot test for the six variables (e.g., question one—content) ranged from 0.84 (good) to 0.98 (excellent). Given the high ICCs, each rater was assigned a unique batch of participants to rate among the remaining participants.

6.3.7 | Honesty

The rater team also evaluated participants' honesty using a scale from 1 (*completely dishonest*) to 100 (*completely honest*) to capture the extent to which they felt the participants were being honest during the interview. A 0/1–100 scale to evaluate psychological constructs (e.g., personality) using an observer approach has been supported by previous research such as Goffin et al. (2009) and Dunlop and et al. (2019). In addition, recent research has supported single-item measures as capable of providing valid and reliable assessments (Matthews et al., 2022). The ICCs for honesty, based on the 15-participant pilot test, were good at 0.80.

7 | RESULTS

7.1 | Overall interview performance

A one-way analysis of variance (ANOVA) was conducted to examine H1a, which predicted that the ChatGPT conditions would have higher overall interview ratings than the non-ChatGPT condition.[2] The one-way ANOVA was also used to test H1b which predicted that the ChatGPT-Personalized condition would have higher overall performance ratings than the ChatGPT-Verbatim condition. The descriptive statistics and correlations for the main study variables are presented in Table 1.

The effect of interview condition on overall performance (average of content and delivery ratings) was statistically significant with a very large effect, $F(2, 244) = 82.25$, $p < .001$, $\eta^2 = 0.41$. In support of H1a, Tukey's honest significant difference (HSD) posthoc test revealed that the Verbatim ($M = 3.78$, SD = 0.62) and Personalized ($M = 3.62$, SD = 0.74) conditions had significantly higher overall performance scores (evaluated out of 5) than the non-ChatGPT condition ($M = 2.52$, SD = 0.71), $p < .001$ (for both). Contrary to H1b, no difference in overall performance was found between the Verbatim and Personalized ChatGPT conditions, $p = .33$. The findings suggest that interviewees can use ChatGPT to increase their overall interview ratings during AVIs; however, whether they read the ChatGPT responses (Verbatim) or customize their entries to ChatGPT/paraphrase the ChatGPT responses (Personalized) may not make a difference in their overall interview ratings.

7.2 | Content ratings

A one-way ANOVA was conducted to examine H2a which predicted that the ChatGPT conditions would receive higher interview ratings for content than the non-ChatGPT condition. There was a significant effect of interview condition on content ratings, Welch's $F(2, 154.70) = 253.73$, $p < .001$. In support of H2a, the Games–Howell posthoc test revealed that the Verbatim ($M = 4.68$, SD = 0.61) and Personalized ($M = 4.14$, SD = 0.82) conditions each had much higher content ratings than the non-ChatGPT condition ($M = 2.17$, SD = 0.83), $p < .001$ for both comparisons. In addition, it was revealed that content ratings were higher for the Verbatim condition than the Personalized condition, $p < .001$, which suggests that ChatGPT's exact responses were generally stronger than interviewees' contextualized/revised responses.

7.3 | Delivery ratings

A one-way ANOVA was conducted to examine H3a which predicted that the ChatGPT conditions would have lower interview ratings for delivery than the non-ChatGPT condition. Contrary to H3a, there was no effect of interview condition on delivery ratings, Welch's $F(2, 157.45) = 1.51$, $p = .23$. The Games–Howell posthoc test revealed that the Verbatim ($M = 2.88$, SD = 1.03) and Personalized ($M = 3.10$, SD = 1.00) conditions did not have significantly different delivery ratings than the non-ChatGPT condition ($M = 2.87$, SD = 0.80), $p > .05$ for both comparisons. In addition, it was revealed that delivery ratings between the Verbatim and Personalized ChatGPT conditions did not differ, $p = .34$. The results suggest that the interview condition did not have an impact on how well participants delivered their responses.[3]

Two mediation analyses with PROCESS were conducted to examine whether the relationship between condition and delivery ratings was mediated by task difficulty (H3b) or interview anxiety (H3c). H3b was not supported as there was no indirect effect of interview condition on delivery through task difficulty for neither the comparison between the non-ChatGPT and the Verbatim conditions ($b = 0.06$, bootstrapped SE = 0.07, bootstrapped 95% confidence interval [95% CI]: [−0.06, 0.21]) nor the comparison between the non-ChatGPT and the Personalized conditions ($b = 0.04$, bootstrapped SE = 0.05, bootstrapped 95% CI: [−0.04, 0.15]). This result suggests that perceived task difficulty does not mediate or reveal a relationship between interview condition and delivery scores. Full mediation results are presented in Figure 1.

H3c was supported as there was an indirect effect of interview condition on delivery through interview anxiety for the comparison between the non-ChatGPT and the Verbatim conditions ($b = 0.05$, bootstrapped SE = 0.03, bootstrapped 95% CI: [0.00, 0.13]) and the comparison between the non-ChatGPT and the Personalized conditions ($b = 0.06$, bootstrapped SE = 0.04, bootstrapped 95% CI: [0.00, 0.15]). This finding (see Figure 1) is despite a lack of a direct effect for the two comparisons on the delivery scores: comparison of the non-ChatGPT and Verbatim conditions ($b = -0.04$, SE = 0.15, $p = .77$) and of the non-ChatGPT and Personalized conditions ($b = 0.17$, $SE = 0.15$, $p = .25$). The results suggest that interview anxiety can help explain a relationship between interview condition and delivery scores such

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TABLE 1 Means, SDs, and correlations for main study variables, organized by interview condition.

Variable	*M*	SD	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8
Non-ChatGPT										
1. Overall performance	2.52	0.71								
2. Content	2.17	0.83	.88**							
3. Delivery	2.87	0.80	.87**	.53**						
4. Task difficulty	4.08	1.43	−.10	.02	−.20					
5. Interview anxiety	2.90	0.98	−.20	−.06	−.30**	.68**				
6. Honesty	81.83	16.36	.51**	.45**	.43**	.00	−.12			
7. Procedural justice	3.06	0.92	−.16	−.14	−.14	−.03	−.24*	−.06		
ChatGPT-Verbatim										
1. Overall performance	3.78	0.62								
2. Content	4.68	0.61	.55**							
3. Delivery	2.88	1.03	.87**	.07						
4. Task difficulty	2.68	1.32	.00	−.17	.10					
5. Interview anxiety	2.56	0.96	.05	.05	.04	.59**				
6. Honesty	42.77	27.20	.51**	−.08	.66**	.25*	.07			
7. Affective reactions	3.81	1.14	−.17	−.04	−.19	−.25*	−.16	−.21		
8. Utility reactions	3.79	1.05	−.08	.03	−.11	−.32**	−.28**	−.21	.75**	
9. Procedural justice	2.61	1.01	−.16	.12	−.25*	.10	−.03	−.30**	.40**	.32**
ChatGPT-Personalized										
1. Overall performance	3.62	0.74								
2. Content	4.14	0.82	.77**							
3. Delivery	3.10	1.00	.85**	.31**						
4. Task difficulty	3.09	1.21	−.30**	−.38**	−.13					
5. Interview anxiety	2.49	0.89	−.14	.01	−.22	.55**				
6. Honesty	59.40	26.80	.20	−.19	.46**	.21	−.14			
7. Affective reactions	4.01	0.95	.03	.05	.01	−.20	−.04	−.07		
8. Utility reactions	3.96	0.82	−.08	.05	−.15	−.15	−.06	−.17	.72**	
9. Procedural justice	2.49	0.89	−.04	−.02	−.05	−.09	−.14	−.04	.17	.17

Note: Non-ChatGPT listwise $N = 84$. ChatGPT-Verbatim listwise $N = 85$. ChatGPT-Personalized listwise $N = 76$.
Abbreviation: M, mean.
*$p < .05$; **$p < .01$.

that interview anxiety has a small, negative impact on delivery. For exploratory purposes, regression analyses were conducted to determine if the relationship between anxiety and delivery scores differs across conditions. It was determined that interview anxiety was negatively associated with delivery scores for the non-ChatGPT condition ($b = -0.24$, SE = 0.09, $p = .01$, adjusted $R^2 = .08$) and the Personalized condition ($b = -0.25$, SE = 0.13, $p = .05$, adjusted $R^2 = .05$), with no association for the Verbatim condition ($b = 0.04$, SE = 0.12, $p = .75$, adjusted $R^2 = .001$. Thus, interview anxiety was harmful to participants' delivery when they had to/were encouraged to create at least some of the content themselves (the non-ChatGPT and Personalized conditions), but not when they were instructed to read the ChatGPT-generated content (Verbatim condition).

A one-way ANOVA was conducted to examine H4 which predicted that the participants in the ChatGPT conditions would be perceived as less honest than the participants in the non-ChatGPT

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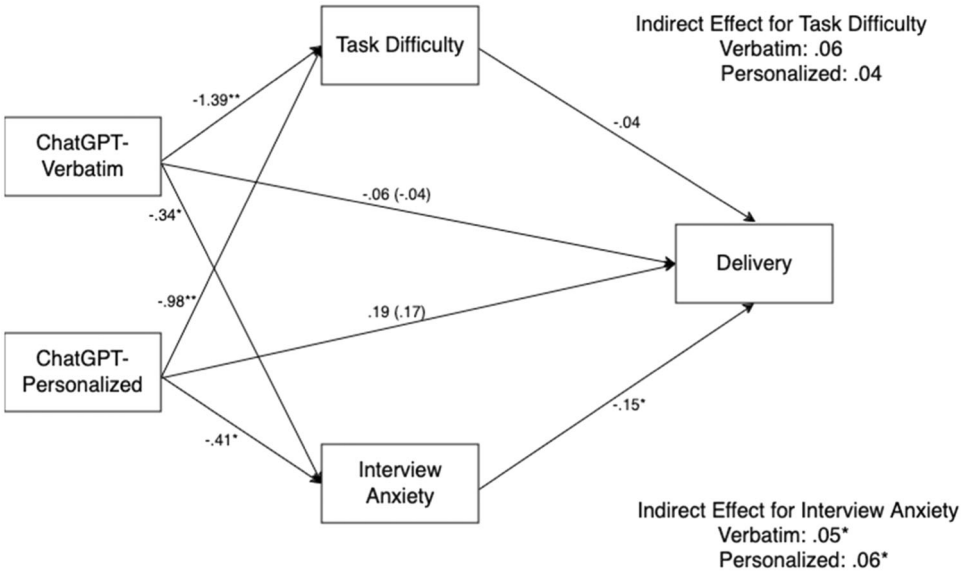

FIGURE 1 Mediations of interview condition on delivery through task difficulty and interview anxiety. Mediation results for H3b and H3c. Values for the ChatGPT-Verbatim and ChatGPT-Personalized conditions represent comparisons with the non-ChatGPT condition. Values represent unstandardized b values. Values in brackets represent the c' Path b values for interview anxiety, while the values outside the brackets represent the c' Path b values for task difficulty. *$p < .05$; **$p < .001$.

condition. Welch's ANOVA revealed an effect of interview condition on honesty (which was evaluated out of 100), $F(2,148.41) = 69.93$, $p < .001$. In support of H4, the Games–Howell posthoc test revealed that the Verbatim ($M = 42.77$, SD = 27.20) and Personalized ($M = 59.40$, SD = 26.80) conditions were each rated as significantly less honest than the non-ChatGPT condition ($M = 81.83$, SD = 16.36), BCa 95% CI: [−47.23, −30.89] and BCa 95% CI: [−30.87, −14.00], respectively. This result suggests that despite the raters assigning higher content scores—and in the process, higher overall performance scores—to the Verbatim and Personalized conditions, they were somewhat able to differentiate between the participants that were not being honest (Verbatim and Personalized) and the ones that were being honest (non-ChatGPT). The Games–Howell posthoc test also revealed that the Personalized condition ($M = 59.40$, SD = 26.80) was perceived to be significantly more honest than the Verbatim condition ($M = 42.77$, SD = 27.20), BCa 95% CI: [6.54, 26.71]. This finding suggests that the customized entries/paraphrasing of the Personalized condition made their responses seem more authentic than the Verbatim condition's responses.[4]

7.4 | Applicant reactions

Descriptive statistics were reviewed to examine H5a, which predicted that those in the ChatGPT conditions would enjoy using the technology. A ChatGPT condition (Verbatim or Personalized) was deemed to have "enjoyed using ChatGPT" if their mean affective reactions score was >3.5 on the 5-point scale. H5a was supported as the affective reactions mean was 3.81 (SD = 1.14) for the Verbatim condition and 4.01 (SD = 0.95) for the Personalized condition, suggesting that both ChatGPT conditions enjoyed using the technology. A bootstrapped independent samples t-test was conducted to examine H5b which predicted that those in the Personalized condition would enjoy using the technology more than those in the Verbatim condition. The difference between the Verbatim and Personalized conditions on affective reactions was not statistically significant, $t(158.39) = -1.18$, BCa 95% CI: [−0.51, 0.14], suggesting that the two ChatGPT conditions similarly enjoyed using ChatGPT to complete the AVI.

Descriptive statistics were reviewed to examine H6a which predicted that those in the ChatGPT conditions would find using ChatGPT during the AVI useful. A ChatGPT condition (Verbatim and Personalized) was deemed to have "found using ChatGPT useful" if their mean utility reactions score was >3.5 on the 5-point scale. H6a was supported as the utility reactions mean was 3.79 (SD = 1.05) for the Verbatim condition and 3.96 (SD = 0.82) for the Personalized condition. A bootstrapped independent samples t-test was conducted to examine H6b which predicted that those in the Personalized condition would find the technology more useful than those in the Verbatim condition. The difference between the Verbatim and Personalized conditions on utility reactions was not statistically significant, $t(156.31) = -1.19$, BCa 95% CI: [−0.44, 0.09], which suggests that the two ChatGPT conditions found ChatGPT similarly helpful during the AVI.

A one-way ANOVA was conducted to examine H7, which predicted that the ChatGPT conditions would view the AVI as less procedurally fair than the non-ChatGPT condition. The ANOVA revealed a medium effect of interview condition on procedural justice, $F(2, 244) = 8.33$, $p < .001$, $\eta^2 = 0.06$. In support of H7, the Tukey HSD posthoc test revealed that the Verbatim ($M = 2.61$,

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TABLE 2 Word count.

	Verbatim	Personalized
1. Situational	410	398
2. Behavioral	335	357
3. Job knowledge	410	410

Note: No statistical analyses were conducted. Differences were assessed by visual inspection.

TABLE 3 Tone.

	Verbatim	Personalized
1. Situational	0.16	0.15
2. Behavioral	0.14	0.14
3. Job knowledge	0.17	0.17

Note: Sentiment polarity scores range from −1 (*extremely negative sentiment*) to 1 (*extremely positive sentiment*) with a score of 0 representing neutral sentiment.

SD = 1.01) and Personalized (M = 2.49, SD = 0.89) conditions viewed the AVI as significantly less procedurally fair (evaluated out of 5) than the non-ChatGPT condition (M = 3.06, SD = 0.92), $p < .05$ for both. This result suggests that the participants' use of ChatGPT to cheat on the AVI led to reduced fairness perceptions for the AVI as a selection tool.

7.5 | Exploratory analyses: Comparing the responses of the ChatGPT conditions

We conducted exploratory analyses using ChatGPT (based on GPT-4) to examine the similarity of the text outputs by ChatGPT both across and within the Verbatim and Personalized conditions. We also conducted manual qualitative analyses of the ChatGPT condition text outputs to investigate whether there were specific words/phrases or themes/topics that were frequently used. It is important to examine the similarity of text outputs because response patterns would suggest that AI cheating may be detectable.

7.5.1 | Comparing Verbatim responses to Personalized responses

First, we compared the Verbatim and Personalized responses in terms of their length and tone. Through a visual inspection, we found that the responses between the Verbatim and Personalized conditions were not substantially different on average word count nor general tone, as can be seen in Tables 2 and 3, respectively. Next, we compared their textual content by assessing the cosine similarity on Term Frequency-Inverse Document Frequency vectors. A score of 0 indicates no similarity between the texts, and a score of 1 indicates that the texts are identical. Pairwise comparisons of rows (e.g., Verbatim response 1 vs. Personalized response 1) were analyzed by ChatGPT-4 and then an average cosine similarity score and standard deviation was calculated. The textual content similarity between the Verbatim and Personalized conditions was moderate across all three interview questions; specifically, they ranged from 0.58 to 0.66. Thus, across word count, tone, and textual content we found that there was a moderate degree of similarity (in terms of textual content) to a very high degree of similarity (in terms of word length and tone) between the text responses that ChatGPT provided to both the Verbatim participants and the Personalized participants.

7.5.2 | Comparing the responses within the Verbatim condition and Personalized condition

The Cosine similarity scores within the ChatGPT-Verbatim condition revealed that the text outputs for each question type within the Verbatim condition were moderately similar, ranging from 0.57 to 0.67. Similarly, the Cosine similarity scores within the ChatGPT-Personalized condition revealed that the text outputs for each question type within the Personalized condition were moderately similar, ranging from 0.56 to 0.68.

In our manual qualitative analysis, we found that "certainly" was used as the first word of ChatGPT's text output 15.72% of the time for the situational question (n = 25 out of 159), 71.25% of the time for the behavioral question (n = 114 out of 160), and 24.05% of the time for the job knowledge question (n = 38 out of 158). The high rate at which "certainly" was used to begin the response to the behavioral question in particular suggests that an interviewer could determine with moderate accuracy whether a response to the behavioral question was ChatGPT-generated by simply focusing on the first word, particularly if interviewees read the response verbatim. We also examined the extent to which the phrase "an effective online filing system" was included in the first sentence of ChatGPT's responses (across Verbatim and Personalized) to the job knowledge question that asked, "what are the key components of an effective online filing system, and how would you ensure its organization and accessibility?" We found that 89.24% of ChatGPT outputs included "an effective online filing system" in the first sentence of their response. Perhaps more telling of potential AI use, we found that 76.58% of the ChatGPT text outputs to that question followed the phrase "an effective online filing system" with "is crucial," "is critical," "is essential," "is integral," or "is vital."

As a final qualitative examination of the similarity of ChatGPT's responses, we coded the theme of the text outputs for the behavioral question, which asked participants to describe a time that they faced interpersonal conflict. Specifically, we coded the source of the conflict mentioned in each text output. Three prominent themes were identified as the source of the conflict in the ChatGPT condition responses: (1) distribution of responsibilities (36.25%); (2) allocation of resources (28.13%); and (3) approach to the task (28.13%). Together, these three themes accounted for 92.51% of the key

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conflicts in the ChatGPT conditions' responses. In comparison, these three themes accounted for a much smaller percentage (35.37%) of the source of the conflict in the non-ChatGPT condition's responses: (1) distribution of responsibilities (12.20%); (2) allocation of resources (2.44%); and (3) approach to the task (20.73%). The non-ChatGPT condition conflicts focused more frequently on poor treatment (20.73%), quality of work (14.63%), and communication style/personality differences (10.98%). Thus, an interview response with a conflict that focused on the distribution of responsibilities, allocation of resources, or approach to the task was at an increased risk of being AI-generated, while a response that focused on poor treatment, quality of work issues, or communication style/personality differences was at a reduced risk of being AI-generated. Table 4 presents the full results. Overall, the results of the exploratory analyses suggest that there may be patterns in ChatGPT's responses and that these patterns may make ChatGPT-use detectable, especially when responses are presented Verbatim.[5]

TABLE 4 Condition differences in the source of conflict in the behavioral question.

Source of conflict	Percentage of responses
ChatGPT conditions (Verbatim and Personalized)	
1. Distribution of responsibilities	36.25% (58)
2. Allocation of resources	28.13% (45)
3. Approach to the task	28.13% (45)
4. Communication style/personality differences	2.5% (4)
5. Scheduling conflict	2.5% (4)
6. Quality of work	0.63% (1)
7. Poor treatment	0.63% (1)
8. Conflict is not clear or not stated	1.25% (2)
Non-ChatGPT condition	
1. Distribution of responsibilities	12.20% (10)
2. Allocation of resources	2.44% (2)
3. Approach to the task	20.73% (17)
4. Communication style/personality differences	10.98% (9)
5. Scheduling conflict	4.88% (4)
6. Quality of work	14.63% (12)
7. Poor treatment	20.73% (17)
8. Violation of rules	1.21% (1)
9. Conflict is not clear or not stated	12.20% (10)

Note: $N = 160$ for ChatGPT conditions (Verbatim and Personalized). $N = 82$ for non-ChatGPT condition. Number of times each conflict was identified is in brackets.

8 | DISCUSSION

The public release of advanced AI chatbots, such as ChatGPT, has provided job applicants with powerful tools that they can use to cheat on a variety of assessments. The purpose of this study was to examine how AI cheating on AVIs may impact interview performance ratings and applicant reactions. This study contributes to the personnel selection literature by being the first study, to our knowledge, to examine the impact of AI cheating on the validity of the AVI. Overall, we found that AI cheating had a large impact on overall interview performance and content ratings, while having no impact on delivery ratings. In addition, interview evaluators rated the ChatGPT participants as less honest than the non-ChatGPT participants. Finally, participants in the ChatGPT conditions enjoyed using the technology in the AVI and found it useful; however, they viewed the AVI as a less procedurally fair selection test, particularly in terms of its job relatedness/predictive ability.

8.1 | Interview performance

First, the ChatGPT conditions (Verbatim and Personalized) received much higher overall performance ratings on the AVI than the non-ChatGPT condition. The finding builds on previous research which has demonstrated that ChatGPT can score highly—including higher than most humans—on a variety of assessments including situational judgment tests, personality tests, and standardized exams such as the bar exam and the United States Medical Licensing Examination (Achiam et al., 2023; Borchert et al., 2023; Brin et al., 2023; Gilson et al., 2023; Phillips & Robie, 2024). In addition, the finding contributes to the testing literature by demonstrating that AI cheating may not only pose a threat to the validity of educational assessments (e.g., Cotton et al., 2023; Malinka et al., 2023), but may also threaten the validity of personnel selection assessments (e.g., Phillips & Robie, 2024).

In our study, there were no differences on overall performance between the two ChatGPT conditions, which suggests that both approaches to AI cheating (Verbatim and Personalized) can be similarly effective overall. Furthermore, the finding suggests that for assessments that require open-ended responses (e.g., job interviews), there may be multiple approaches to AI cheating (e.g., stating exact responses or paraphrasing/revising responses) that may help individuals obtain a good score. In sum, our overall performance findings demonstrate that advanced AI chatbots can help interviewees obtain high scores on AVIs and that both Verbatim and Personalized cheating approaches may be effective.

Second, our study revealed that the ChatGPT conditions received much higher content ratings than the non-ChatGPT condition, but that there were no differences between any of the three conditions on delivery. These findings suggest that ChatGPT can consistently provide accurate and job-relevant responses to interview questions and that content rating differences may primarily explain the higher overall performance scores for the ChatGPT conditions. The lack of a difference between the interview conditions

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on delivery indicates that AI cheating on AVIs may not have an overall impact on how well applicants communicate their responses.

The applicability of Levashina and Campion's (2006) model of interview faking to AI cheating is partially supported by our findings of higher overall performance and content ratings for the ChatGPT conditions. Levashina and Campion's (2006) model of interview faking contends that an applicant's capacity to fake (i.e., to deceive) is a key determinant of whether they can obtain good interview ratings through dishonest means. Conceptualizing the capacity to cheat as "intelligence" (e.g., the intelligence of the interviewee, the intelligence of the AI chatbot, or the AI-augmented intelligence of interviewees), our findings provide support for Levashina and Campion's (2006) contention. Specifically, given that advanced AI chatbots have been shown to have greater intelligence than most humans in many domains (e.g., Achiam et al., 2023; Borchert et al., 2023; Gilson et al., 2023) our findings in favor of the Verbatim and Personalized conditions suggest that capacity to cheat (e.g., intelligence) may explain why the AI conditions obtained higher overall interview ratings and content ratings.

However, although Levashina and Campion's (2006) concept of "capacity to fake" can help explain the ability of the ChatGPT conditions to obtain higher overall and content ratings, the very existence of large performance differences between the AI conditions and the non-AI condition also helps distinguish AI cheating from interview faking as interview faking has not been consistently associated with improved interview performance (Ho et al., 2021). Specifically, our finding that the ChatGPT conditions obtained higher ratings helps demonstrate that AI cheating poses a more serious threat to the validity of the AVI than traditional interview faking, and thus, AI cheating merits a different term to capture its existence.

It is also important to note that while the ChatGPT conditions had higher ratings for overall performance and content, they were perceived as less honest than the non-ChatGPT condition, with the Verbatim condition being perceived as less honest than the Personalized condition. The finding of lower perceived honesty for the Verbatim and Personalized conditions suggests that interview raters may be able to detect AI cheating, especially Verbatim cheating, with some accuracy. Importantly, the raters in our study were not trained to detect AI cheating, so it is likely that raters trained to recognize this form of deception could be even more accurate in their evaluations of honesty (e.g., assign low scores to the Verbatim and Personalized conditions). To this point, our exploratory qualitative analyses revealed that the ChatGPT responses to each question often exhibited patterns. For example, the majority of ChatGPT responses to the behavioral question began with the word "Certainly" and involved a conflict about either the distribution of responsibilities, allocation of resources, or approach to the task. Thus, real interview evaluators that are prepared to identify AI cheating (e.g., have run the interview questions through popular AI chatbots multiple times and identified patterns), should be able to differentiate honest from dishonest responders with even greater accuracy than our raters.

In terms of mediators, task difficulty was not found to mediate the relationship between interview condition and delivery, which suggests that how difficult interviewees perceive completing the AVI does not have an overall impact on how well they communicate their responses. However, we found that interview anxiety partially mediated the relationship between interview condition and delivery, such that greater anxiety was associated with worse delivery. This finding aligns with past research which has also found a negative relationship between anxiety and interview performance (e.g., McCarthy et al., 2021; Powell et al., 2018).

8.2 | Applicant reactions

The ChatGPT conditions both reported positive affective and utility reactions to using ChatGPT to complete the AVI. The findings build on the work of Noy and Zhang (2023) by demonstrating that interviewees who engage in AI cheating, like employees who use AI for work tasks, have positive reactions to using advanced AI chatbots. The findings are important because they suggest that once an interviewee uses AI to cheat on an AVI they may perceive the technology as fun and useful which—given the link between applicant reactions and behavior (e.g., Liebermann & Hoffmann, 2008)—may lead to them continuing to use AI to cheat in the future. Finally, both ChatGPT conditions reported viewing the AVI as a less procedurally fair selection tool than the non-ChatGPT condition, which highlights the potential for the AVI—and organizations that rely on it—to lose standing with applicants that are aware of its susceptibility to AI cheating. Indeed, if organizations do not take steps to protect the integrity of their AVIs, the low procedural justice scores of the Verbatim and Personalized conditions may one day resemble the typical applicant's perception of the fairness of the AVI. Overall, these interviewee reactions' findings complement past research (e.g., Acikgoz et al., 2020; Mirowska, 2020; Woods et al., 2020) by revealing how applicants may view AI when they—rather than organizations—use it during selection processes.

8.3 | Practical implications

The ChatGPT conditions' ability to obtain much higher overall and content ratings than the non-ChatGPT condition suggests that AI cheating may seriously harm the validity of the AVI. A silver lining is that the ChatGPT conditions were perceived as less honest than the non-ChatGPT condition indicating that AI cheating, especially "verbatim-cheating," may be detectable. To detect AI cheating, interview evaluators can run their job interview questions through the most popular AI chatbots (e.g., ChatGPT, Gemini, Copilot, Perplexity, Claude) and screen out any interviewees that provide identical or similar responses. While this approach may be less effective in detecting interviewees who cheat using a Personalized approach, it may still be valuable as commonly AI-generated discussion points (e.g., "conflict over the allocation of resources") and words/phrases (e.g., beginning responses with "Certainly") may be identifiable in Personalized responses. In addition, where it is legal,

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it may be helpful for organizations to employ online proctoring technology that can determine if interviewees open other web browsers or applications during the AVI. Another approach to help detect AI cheating may involve instructing interview evaluators to be wary of applicants who seem to be reading from their screens. Finally, it may be wise for organizations to incorporate behavioral questions into their AVIs as falsified personal stories may be more easily identifiable than falsified plans of action (situational questions) or faked knowledge (job knowledge questions).

To protect the integrity of their AVIs, organizations can also enact measures to prevent AI cheating. For example, they can provide their interview questions solely in the form of prerecorded videos rather than text. In addition, they could minimize preparation time and thus require applicants to respond soon after hearing/reading the question. Preparation time could also be eliminated to reduce the risk of AI cheating; however, that may not be the optimal decision overall given that preparation time has a positive impact on applicant reactions (Tilston et al., 2023). Thus, organizations may be wise to minimize preparation time (e.g., to 30 s) to balance both cheating and applicant reactions concerns. Finally, if questions are provided in written form, organizations could disable the ability of applicants to copy-and-paste them from the AVI platform.

In terms of implications for job applicants, the findings indicate that applicants could use AI to receive high scores on AVIs, with a Personalized cheating approach likely reducing the likelihood that they would be detected. However, while AI cheating may seem tempting for job applicants, it may not be in their best interest given that evaluators may suspect they are not being honest and screen them out of the selection process. Instead, job applicants can take an honest approach to improving their interview performance including by relying on AI chatbots to coach them before an interview, using official interview preparation tools such as Big Interview (Fulk et al., 2022), and using the STAR approach to respond to behavioral questions (Birt, 2023).

8.4 | Limitations and future research directions

First, a key limitation was that participants in all three conditions had unlimited preparation time. Thus, the study may not resemble the AVI configuration employed by many organizations (Dunlop et al., 2022). Future research could examine how AI cheating on AVIs impacts performance when there are short preparation times (e.g., 30 s). Second, many participants who were recruited for the ChatGPT conditions ended up self-selecting out of the study, potentially because of the complexity of the ChatGPT condition instructions. Thus, there may be a confound effect such that more capable or technologically savvy participants were more likely to be in the ChatGPT conditions. This potential confound effect may have led to inflated performance scores for the ChatGPT conditions relative to a completely random sample, especially for the ChatGPT-Personalized condition, which required a more complex interaction with ChatGPT. Future research could examine whether cognitive ability (which has been found to affect interview faking effectiveness; Levashina et al., 2009) and/or technological savvy moderates the ability of applicants to effectively engage in AI cheating, especially Personalized cheating. In addition, future research could examine whether any relationship in the AI conditions between cognitive ability and interview ratings is moderated by AVI design factors such as preparation time.

A third limitation was the lack of examination of various elements of delivery. Qualitative feedback from our raters suggested that the ChatGPT conditions and the non-ChatGPT condition may have excelled and faltered in opposing elements of delivery. For example, during the study debrief meeting, our raters indicated that the participants they suspect were in the ChatGPT conditions generally spoke well without pauses or filler words, but their tone was often robotic, and they did not frequently make good eye contact with the camera. On the other hand, the non-ChatGPT condition came off as more natural and made more eye contact, but they stumbled over their words more often. Thus, future research could examine whether there are performance differences across delivery elements between those relying and not relying on AI.

Another limitation was that we did not examine whether capacity to cheat mediated the relationship between condition and interview performance. The inability to examine capacity to cheat as a mediator limited our ability to test whether the capacity to fake construct from Levashina and Campion's (2006) faking model could be applied to the phenomenon of AI cheating. In addition, it prevented us from determining whether capacity to cheat could explain the higher overall and content ratings that we found for the ChatGPT conditions. Future research could examine whether capacity to cheat mediates the relationship between interview condition and performance. Capacity to cheat could be conceptualized as the participants' and/or the AI chatbot's intelligence and operationalized using verbal reasoning ability, job knowledge, and/or general intelligence tests. Specifically, participants in a non-AI condition could complete the intelligence tests without AI assistance, those in a Verbatim condition could only have AI complete the intelligence tests, and those in the Personalized condition could use AI but have the autonomy to decide their final answers.

Another potential drawback was that the development of the BARS involved the assistance of AI which may have given the ChatGPT conditions an advantage. Future research could aim to replicate these findings with BARS created solely by human subject-matter experts. Sixth, a limitation of our study was that we were not able to determine whether each participant was using ChatGPT with GPT-3.5 (free) or the more powerful GPT-4 (paid). This limitation is tempered by the fact that most participants were likely using GPT-3.5 given that it was the most capable free version available at the time (GPT-4o had not been released yet), and thus that our findings of much higher overall performance and content ratings for the ChatGPT conditions likely largely represent GPT-3.5 but would also likely apply to the more powerful GPT-4 and GPT-4o models. However, future research on advanced AI chatbots should take care to identify/control which AI tools (including specific versions) participants use to precisely draw conclusions about AI capabilities.

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Finally, the study was limited by its reliance on a mock AVI with online participants. Despite only choosing participants with relevant job experience and providing a financial incentive (e.g., bonus compensation based on performance), participants' responses may not have been reflective of real job applicants' responses (e.g., due to lack of motivation, job knowledge, and/or job experience). For instance, it is unclear whether real job applicants who AI cheat are also less likely than non-AI cheaters to view the AVI as a procedurally fair selection tool or, on the contrary, if they are equally likely/more likely to view the AVI as a fair selection tool due to motivated reasoning (i.e., having a bias towards viewing themselves as strong candidates; Hahn & Harris, 2014; Kunda, 1990). Thus, future research could examine whether our study's findings remain under more high-stakes situations, including with real applicants.

8.5 | Conclusion

This study provides the first examination, to our knowledge, of how AI cheating may impact interview performance and applicant reactions in the AVI. The findings suggest that interviewees can effectively use AI to cheat on AVIs; however, they may come across as less honest. In addition, interviewees who engage in AI cheating during the AVI may enjoy doing so and find the technology helpful with that aim. Finally, those who engage in AI cheating may have reduced procedural justice perceptions of the AVI. Overall, the findings suggest that organizations that rely on AVIs should take steps to prevent and detect AI cheating to protect the validity of their selection processes.

AUTHOR CONTRIBUTIONS

Damian Canagasuriam: Conceptualization; data curation; methodology; project administration; formal analysis; writing—original draft. Eden-Raye Lukacik: Conceptualization; data curation; methodology; formal analysis; funding acquisition; writing—review and editing.

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DATA AVAILABILITY STATEMENT

The data that support the findings of this study are available in the Open Science Framework (OSF). The anonymous link: https://osf.io/uzg9d/?view_only=c08ab61b2c054842b6fd2add753a55f6.

ENDNOTES

[1] The study was preregistered: https://aspredicted.org/WRC_7BN. All materials and an anonymized data set can be found in the OSF folder for the project: https://osf.io/uzg9d/?view_only=c08ab61b2c054842b6fd2add753a55f6.

[2] Note that study assumption checks revealed non-normality and outliers for most study variables. Bootstrapping was used when the assumption of normality was violated. In addition, outliers were included in all analyses because the overall results (i.e., whether significant differences were found) were the same regardless of whether the outliers were excluded. Finally, when the assumption of homogeneity of variance was violated in ANOVA and *t* test analyses (as indicated by Levene's test), Welch's ANOVA and the Games–Howell posthoc test were used for ANOVAs, and equal variances were not assumed for *t* tests.

[3] As an exploratory analysis, three mixed ANOVAs were conducted to examine whether there was an interaction between interview condition and question type in terms of their effect on overall performance, content, and delivery. Only the mixed ANOVA with content ratings as the dependent variable revealed a statistically significant interaction between interview condition and question type, $F(4, 412) = 2.49$, $p = .04$, partial $\eta^2 = 0.02$. A follow-up repeated-measures ANOVA revealed that there was a significant effect of question type for content ratings for the Personalized condition, $F(2, 118) = 6.28$, $p < .01$, partial $\eta^2 = 0.10$. Specifically, for the Personalized condition, content ratings were significantly lower for the situational question ($M = 3.92$, SD = 1.06) than for both the behavioral question ($M = 4.28$, SD = 0.97) and the job knowledge question ($M = 4.33$, SD = 0.91), *p*s were .02 and .01, respectively. Full results for the mixed ANOVAs can be found in the online supplement: https://osf.io/uzg9d/?view_only=c08ab61b2c054842b6fd2add753a55f6.

[4] Honesty ratings for the ChatGPT-Verbatim and ChatGPT-Personalized conditions were also examined to check if honesty ratings decreased over time due to raters' increased familiarity with responses that involved AI cheating. As raters evaluated participants in two batches (Batch 1, then Batch 2), we examined whether honesty ratings declined over time by comparing the honesty ratings of the ChatGPT-Verbatim and ChatGPT-Personalized participants across these two batches. The independent-samples *t* test revealed that there was no difference between the honesty ratings from Batch 1 ($M = 52.41$, SD = 27.84) and Batch 2 ($M = 48.39$, SD = 29.60), $M = 4.02$, 95% CI: [−5.12, 13.24], $t(150) = 0.86$, $p = .39$. This finding suggests that, despite having more experience with AI cheating videos, raters did not provide lower honesty ratings for the ChatGPT participants over time.

[5] The full exploratory analyses can be found in the online supplement.

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